

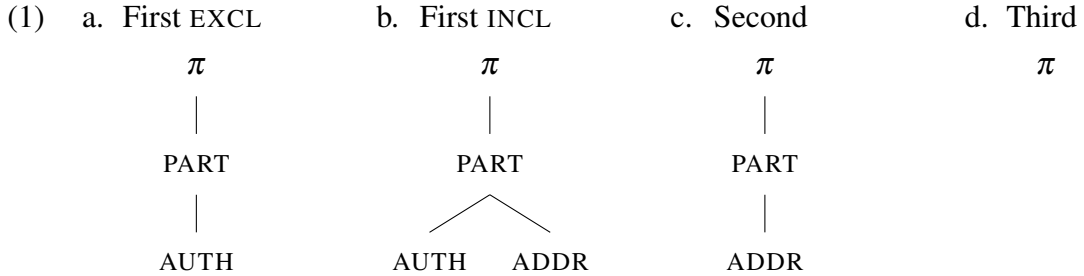
Impersonal impersonals and personal third persons: An argument for binary $[\pm\text{PART}]^*$

Peter Grishin

Massachusetts Institute of Technology

1. Introduction

There is debate about the featural representation of the classic person categories (first exclusive, first inclusive, second, third). Two prominent points of controversy are (i) whether person features are PRIVATIVE (i.e. $[\text{F}]$; Bonet 1991, Harley and Ritter 2002, a.m.o.) or BIVALENT (i.e. $[\pm\text{F}]$; Silverstein 1976, Noyer 1992, a.m.o.), and (ii) whether third person is less specified than first or second (cf. Nevins 2007, Grishin 2023b, a.o.). Sample privative (1) and bivalent (2) specifications for the four person categories are provided below.



- (2) a. $[\text{+PART}, \text{+AUTH}, \text{−ADDR}] = \text{First EXCL}$
b. $[\text{+PART}, \text{+AUTH}, \text{+ADDR}] = \text{First INCL}$
c. $[\text{+PART}, \text{−AUTH}, \text{+ADDR}] = \text{Second}$
d. $[\text{−PART}, \text{−AUTH}, \text{−ADDR}] = \text{Third}$

*I'd like to thank Amy Rose Deal, Chris Hammerly, Will Oxford, participants in the MIT Spring 2024 24.956 "Topics in Syntax" seminar on morphosyntactic features, and the anonymous reviewers and audience of NELS 55 for helpful comments, questions, and discussion. *Nkoti-wolasuweltomuwak-ona Edwina Mitchell, Margaret Apt, Gracie Paul, naka Roger Paul—skat-op wicuhkemiwehq, ma-tehp keq nkisehtuwon.* Blame me and none of them for any mistakes, misunderstandings, or misrepresentations.

Harbour (2011) and Kouneli (2021), investigating the representation of number, note that privative and bivalent feature systems make different predictions about how many distinctions are generated for a given feature. A privative feature [F] only generates a bipartite division between [F] and [], whereas a bivalent feature [$\pm$ F] generates a tripartite division between [+F], [−F], and []. On the basis of this kind of argument (among others), both authors argue for bivalent number features.

This logic, of course, extends past the domain of number—it’s equally applicable to the domain of person. This paper does exactly that: I apply this partition argument to argue for bivalent person features, showing that Passamaquoddy-Wolastoqey (Eastern Algonquian)¹ provides evidence for a tripartite partition of the person space into [+PART] (SPEECH-ACT PARTICIPANTS, SAPs), [−PART] (third persons), and [] (certain impersonal pronouns, which are thus truly person-less). The empirical domain will be the different agreement behavior of SAPs, third persons, and a null impersonal pronoun *pro*_{IMPERS} in the language.

2. Background

2.1 Language background

Passamaquoddy-Wolastoqey is an Eastern Algonquian language, traditionally split into two mutually-intelligible dialects: Passamaquoddy, spoken in eastern Maine, and Wolastoqey, spoken in New Brunswick. Throughout, I use ‘Passamaquoddy’ to refer to the language in general—the two dialects don’t differ, as far as I am aware, with respect to any of the phenomena discussed here. The data for this paper comes from paradigms and example sentences from the online Passamaquoddy-Wolastoqey dictionary (<https://pmpportal.org/>) and my own fieldwork with two Passamaquoddy and two Wolastoqey speakers, carried out over Zoom and in person from 2020–present day.

2.2 Unspecified subject forms

Much of the discussion will revolve around certain verb forms found in Algonquian languages that are traditionally called UNSPECIFIED SUBJECT forms:²

- (3) a. **Kis-oka-n** welaqik.
 PFV-dance.AI-AN last.night
 ‘There was a dance last night.’
- b. **Kisi= pkon-a-Ø-Ø** sakom wolaku.
 PFV= pick.TA-3OBJ-AN-AN.SG chief yesterday
 ‘A chief was elected yesterday.’

¹Similar arguments could be made on the basis of other Algonquian languages.

²Uncited examples come from my fieldwork. I use standard Leipzig glossing abbreviations, with the addition of AI “animate intransitive”, AN “animate”, AUG “augmented”, AUTH “author”, CJ “conjunct”, DFLT “default”, EMPH “emphatic”, IC “initial change”, II “inanimate intransitive”, IMPERS “impersonal”, IN “inanimate”, INV “inverse”, PART “participant”, TA “transitive animate”.

There is debate about whether unspecified subject forms across Algonquian are passives or impersonal constructions with a null impersonal pronominal subject (see Blevins 2003, a.m.o. on this distinction).³ Rhodes (1976) and Dahlstrom (1991) argue that they are indeed passives, but Dryer (1996), Lochbihler (2012), and Oxford (2014) argue that they are impersonals, relying on morphological arguments like the retention of normal object agreement, *-a* ‘3OBJ’ (3b). (NB: there is no single dedicated “unspecified subject” morpheme.)

It is important for my argument that these be impersonals and not passives, as we will be examining how various ϕ -probes interact with null impersonal subjects. Here’s a novel syntactic argument for this conclusion, to supplement the morphological arguments from Dryer (1996), Lochbihler (2012), and Oxford (2014): we can get unspecified subject forms with unaccusative predicates (note that *pro*_{IMPERS} gets both arbitrary and generic readings):

- (4) a. **Siktewoc-ulti-n** welaqik.
 feel.cold.AI-PL-AN last.night
 ‘People were freezing last night.’
- b. Tayuwek **petapas-ulti-n**?
 when **arrive.AI-PL-PL-AN**
 ‘When are people going to get here?’
- c. Cu **pomami-n** skat ’sawatom-omu(h)k.
 FUT **fall.AI-AN** NEG watch.out.AI-⟨NEG⟩IMPERS.CJ
 [‘Talking about a difficult mountain hike.’] ‘One will fall if one doesn’t watch out.’

Since unaccusatives, lacking an external argument, cannot be passivized (Perlmutter and Postal 1977, 1984), these facts show that unspecified subject forms are impersonals, not passives, with a null impersonal pronoun *pro*_{IMPERS} in subject position. With this established, we can ask: what is the featural specification of *pro*_{IMPERS}?

3. Diagnosing person specifications via ϕ agreement

Here I argue for the following conclusions: (i) *pro*_{IMPERS} is specified for number and (grammatical) animacy (i.e. gender/noun class), and (ii) *pro*_{IMPERS}, in contrast to SAPs and third persons, is underspecified for person. Thus, we get a three-way split between [+PART] (SAPs), [−PART] (third person), and [] (*pro*_{IMPERS}). Put differently: “personal” DPs are specified for person (π), number ($\#$), and noun class (γ), whereas *pro*_{IMPERS} is only specified for number ($\#$) and noun class (γ)—it is thus truly “im-”personal.⁴ I illustrate this difference in (5), providing the bivalent feature system I’ll be adopting (at least for Passamaquoddy).⁵

³Note that most Algonquian languages (like Passamaquoddy) don’t otherwise have a canonical passive.

⁴This differs slightly from Egerland (2003), Fenger (2018), and Šereikaitė (2022) (a.o.), who argue that impersonal pronouns that allow for both arbitrary and generic readings, like Passamaquoddy *pro*_{IMPERS}, are wholly underspecified for *all* ϕ features, not just person.

⁵I’m abstracting away from the issue of how obviation is featurally represented. see Grishin (2023b), Hammerly (2023) for some discussion of how obviation fits into the ϕ feature system.

⁸One might wonder if animate finals are actually underspecified for animacy, whereas inanimate finals are specified [−AN]. This is unlikely because, as Bruening (2001:262) and Grishin (2023b:§4.1) (a.o.) note, it's actually *inanimate* that patterns as the unmarked category, not animate (including with finals).

Impersonal impersonals and personal third persons

In terms of number, in general, number-marking suffixes (both on nouns and verbs) only make a singular-plural ([±SG]) distinction, as in (8) where we see a contrast between $\emptyset$ ‘PART.SG’ and *-pa* ‘2PL’:

- | | |
|--|---|
| <p>(8) a. kt-ahsim-i-$\emptyset$
 2-convince.TA-1 OBJ-PART.SG
 ‘you.SG convince me’</p> | <p>b. kt-ahsim-i-pa
 2-convince.TA-1 OBJ-2PL
 ‘y’all.PL (≥2) convince me’</p> |
|--|---|

The only exception to this is with intransitive verbs with animate subjects (“animate intransitive”, AI), where there is a set of immediately post-stem number suffixes that mark [+AUG] (i.e. plural, ≥3) (*-ulti*, *-uhti*, *-ahti*, *-awoloti*-, or *-hoti*, depending on the stem).

- | | | |
|--|--|---|
| <p>(9) a. kt-op-$\emptyset$
 2-sit.AI-PART.SG
 ‘you.SG sit’</p> | <p>b. kt-opi-pa
 2-sit.AI-2PL
 ‘y’all.DU (≥2) sit’</p> | <p>c. kt-op-ulti-pa
 2-sit.AI-PL-2PL
 ‘y’all.PL (≥3) sit’</p> |
|--|--|---|

Dual is now marked by the normally-plural suffixes (here, *-pa* ‘2PL’), and “true” plural is marked by the addition of *-ulti* ‘PL’. Note that the dual forms are occasionally also used for plural reference (more common for non-sentient subjects), instead of the plural forms—I leave detailed investigation of this for future work.

Additionally, we can show that these low [+AUG] suffixes must be sensitive to morphosyntactic features rather than semantic plurality, as singular group-denoting DPs, like *psi-te wen* ‘everyone’, cannot cooccur with them:

- (10) a. Psi=te wen kisi= maqehe- $\emptyset$ - $\emptyset$.
 all=EMPH who PFV= gather.AI-DFLT-AN.SG
- b. *Psi=te wen kisi= maqah-**ahtu**- $\emptyset$ - $\emptyset$.
 all=EMPH who PFV= gather.AI-**PL**-DFLT-AN.SG
 ‘Everyone.SG gathered.’

Here, we know that *psi-te wen* ‘everyone’ must denote a plurality, as it is combining with a collective predicate *maqehe* ‘gather’. This plural semantics is not enough to license *-ahti* ‘-PL’ here—*psi-te wen* ‘everyone’ is firmly grammatically singular, and must get agreed-with as singular.

Interestingly, unspecified subject forms can appear with [+AUG] suffixes:

- | | |
|---|---|
| <p>(11) a. Kis-oka-n welaqik.
 PFV-dance.AI-AN last.night
 ‘There was a dance last night.’</p> | <p>b. Kis-ok-ahti-n welaqik.
 PFV-dance.AI-PL-AN last.night
 ‘People danced last night.’</p> |
|---|---|

Speakers report that the forms with [+AUG] suffixes explicitly tell you that there were many people involved, whereas forms without them don’t tell you anything about how many people were involved. Given that the [+AUG] suffixes are sensitive to morphosyntactic number features, rather than semantic plurality, this indicates that *pro*_{IMPERS} can be specified [±AUG]. Thus, *pro*_{IMPERS} is specified for number (at least [±AUG]).

3.2 [+PART] versus [−PART] versus []: Evidence from C

Here, I overview the behavior of an agreement suffix exponing C (the PERIPHERAL SUFFIX; Xu 2022, Grishin 2023b) and its consequences for the specification of *pro*_{IMPERS}. First, note that C (across Algonquian) is an *omnivorous third person probe* (Grishin 2023b) always and only agreeing with third persons:⁹

- | | |
|---|--|
| <p>(12) a. n- cone hl -oku -n -Ø
 1- stop.TA -INV -1PL -AN.SG
 Infl √+v Voice Infl C
 ‘she stops us’</p> | <p>b. n- cone hl -oku -nnu -k
 1- stop.TA -INV -1PL -AN.PL
 Infl √+v Voice Infl C
 ‘they stop us’</p> |
| <p>(13) a. n- cone hl -a -n -Ø
 1- stop.TA -3OBJ -1PL -AN.SG
 Infl √+v Voice Infl C
 ‘we stop her’</p> | <p>b. n- cone hl -a -nnu -k
 1- stop.TA -3OBJ -1PL -AN.PL
 Infl √+v Voice Infl C
 ‘we stop them’</p> |

Above, C agrees with the third person whether it’s the subject (12) or object (13).¹⁰ This means that C must be specified to probe for a feature found on third persons but not SAPs, i.e. [−PART].¹¹

Interestingly, C never agrees with *pro*_{IMPERS}, even if it triggers plural agreement elsewhere on the verb, as in (14a):

- | | |
|--|---|
| <p>(14) a. op -ulti -n (*-ok)
 sit.AI -PL -AN (*-AN.PL)
 √+v # Infl C
 ‘people sit’</p> | <p>b. k- cone hl -oke -pa (*-k)
 2- stop.TA -IMPERS.INV -2PL (*-AN.PL)
 Infl √+v Voice Infl C
 ‘y’all are stopped (by people)’</p> |
|--|---|

It’s unlikely that *pro*_{IMPERS} shares the feature [+PART] with SAPs, given that it never triggers [+PART] agreement anywhere. Thus, the fact that C can’t interact with *pro*_{IMPERS} indicates that *pro*_{IMPERS} is underspecified for [±PART].

3.3 [+PART] versus [−PART] versus []: Evidence from Infl

A similar argument can be made from the agreement behavior of Infl. This argument is clearest to make with verbs inflected in the SUBORDINATIVE MODE, the inflectional paradigm found in CP-less clauses (Grishin 2024)—this avoids haplological dissimilation effects between Infl and C that obscure Infl’s underlying agreement behavior (Oxford 2017, Sun and Grishin 2025). I provide a partial subordinative intransitive paradigm in Table 1.

⁹In (12a) and (13a), -nnu ‘1PL’ appears as -n word-finally due to regular phonology: syncope of final unstressed vowels feeding word-final geminate simplification: /... nnu#/ → /... nn#/ → [... n#].

¹⁰NB: Even though there’s inverse marking in (12), the object isn’t (A-)moving over the subject; see Oxford (2023), Grishin (2023a, 2025) for evidence for this (contra Bruening 2001, 2009, Oxford 2019b, a.o.).

¹¹Note that I assume that copying is coarse, copying all features of the goal (Baier 2018, Coon and Keine 2021, Grishin 2023b, Deal and Royer 2025, a.m.o.).

Impersonal impersonals and personal third persons

	SG	DU (≥ 2)	PL (≥ 3)
1EXCL	<u>nt</u> ... <u>-n</u> <u>1</u> ... <u>-AN</u>	<u>nt</u> ... <u>-ne-n</u> <u>1</u> ... <u>-AN-1PL</u>	<u>nt</u> ... <u>-ulti-ne-n</u> <u>1</u> ... <u>-PL-AN-1PL</u>
1INCL		<u>kt</u> ... <u>-ne-n</u> <u>2</u> ... <u>-AN-1PL</u>	<u>kt</u> ... <u>-ulti-ne-n</u> <u>2</u> ... <u>-PL-AN-1PL</u>
2	<u>kt</u> ... <u>-n</u> <u>2</u> ... <u>-AN</u>	<u>kt</u> ... <u>-ni-ya</u> <u>2</u> ... <u>-AN-PL</u>	<u>kt</u> ... <u>-ulti-ni-ya</u> <u>2</u> ... <u>-PL-AN-PL</u>
3AN	<u>'t</u> ... <u>-n</u> <u>3</u> ... <u>-AN</u>	<u>'t</u> ... <u>-ni-ya</u> <u>3</u> ... <u>-AN-PL</u>	<u>'t</u> ... <u>-ulti-ni-ya</u> <u>3</u> ... <u>-PL-AN-PL</u>
IMPERS		... <u>-n</u> ... <u>-AN</u>	... <u>-ulti-n</u> ... <u>-PL-AN</u>
3IN		...-(w) ... <u>-DFLT</u>	

Table 1: Partial subordinative intransitive paradigm (CP-less clauses)

In this table, the exponents of Infl are underlined—I assume they are derived by Fission and morphological displacement operations (following Oxford 2019a, Sun and Grishin 2025). In the subordinative (just like the independent, the default paradigm for CP-sized clauses, which we’ve been mainly focusing on above), Infl only agrees with animates (i.e. it’s specified (at least) [$u+AN$]). When you have an inanimate subject of an intransitive verb (i.e. when there are no [$+AN$] arguments to agree with), you get the default exponent of Infl, $-(w)$ ‘DFLT’.¹² In all other cases, i.e. when Infl successfully agrees, you see a suffix $-n(e)$ ‘AN’ (realized as $-ni$ before y due to regular phonology). You also get person prefixes (kt - ‘2’ $\leftrightarrow$ [$+PART, +ADDR$], nt - ‘1’ $\leftrightarrow$ [$+PART, -ADDR$], $'t$ - ‘3’ $\leftrightarrow$ [$-PART, -ADDR$]) and person/number suffixes ($-n(nu)$ ‘1PL’ $\leftrightarrow$ [$+AUTH, -SG$], $-(y)a$ ‘PL’ $\leftrightarrow$ [$-AUTH, -SG$]).

Note that person prefixes and person/number suffixes are missing in the impersonal subject row. However, this isn’t because Infl has failed to agree with pro_{IMPERS} entirely—we do see $-n(e)$ ‘AN’, indicating that Infl *has* actually found a goal (if it hadn’t, we would have instead gotten $-(w)$ ‘DFLT’, like with inanimate subjects). Infl’s inability to expone any persons features upon agreeing with pro_{IMPERS} thus indicates that pro_{IMPERS} lacks person features entirely—it is underspecified for [$\pm PART$] (as well as [$\pm AUTH$] and [$\pm ADDR$]). In summary: we find evidence for a three-way partition of the person space: SAPs are [$+PART$], third persons are [$-PART$], and pro_{IMPERS} is underspecified.

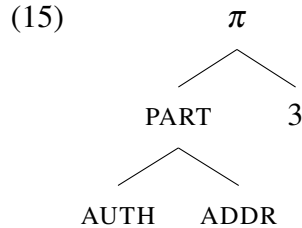
4. There is no privative alternative

This tripartite partition of the person space comes for free with binary [$\pm PART$]. Is there a way to capture this data with privative [$PART$]?

¹²I assume that Agree can fail without crashing the derivation (Preminger 2014, a.m.o.).

Here’s an attempt: we can distinguish between SAP, third person, and *pro*_{IMPERS} in a privative system as follows: SAPs are [π , PART], third person is [π], and *pro*_{IMPERS} is [] (this is roughly the system in Oxford 2024). The problem with this is that these specifications can’t capture the omnivorous third person pattern found with C agreement: there is no way to specify a probe to interact only with third persons but not SAPs or *pro*_{IMPERS}.

Another attempt to square together all the Passamaquoddy agreement data with privative person features is to add a privative feature [3] to the person geometry, found only on third persons (Bondarenko and Zompì 2025; also entertained by Grishin 2023b)—this also allows us to capture C’s agreement preferences (i.e. a probe specified for [3]):



The problem with this person geometry is that it actually derives a (to the best of my knowledge) unattested *quadripartition* of the person space into [PART, 3], [PART], [3], and []. To prevent this, we could stipulate that [PART] and [3] cannot co-occur (in contrast to, e.g., [AUTH] and [ADDR])—but once we’ve done that, we’ve just reinvented bivalent features ([PART] = [+PART], [3] = [−PART]). We also can’t rule out the combination [PART, 3] on semantic grounds, because third person DPs aren’t semantically incompatible with [PART], as they can include speaker and addressee in their reference (e.g. *everyone in this room*, when speaker and addressee are in the room). In sum: privative feature systems cannot capture all of the patterns we’ve discussed in this paper.

5. Conclusion

Agreement facts in Passamaquoddy show us that we need person features to generate a three-way partition of the person space into [+PART] (SAPs), [−PART] (third persons), and [] (*pro*_{IMPERS}), a partition that only bivalent feature systems naturally derive. Privative alternatives do not work. Third persons are thus fully specified for (bivalent) person features, whereas *pro*_{IMPERS} is truly “im-”personal.

References

- Baier, Nicholas. 2018. Anti-Agreement. Doctoral dissertation, University of California, Berkeley.
- Blevins, James P. 2003. Passives and Impersonals. *Journal of Linguistics* 39:473–520.
- Bondarenko, Tatiana, and Stanislaw Zompì. 2025. Leftover Agreement. Online First at *Natural Language & Linguistic Theory*.

- Bonet, Eulàlia. 1991. Morphology after Syntax: Pronominal Clitics in Romance. Doctoral dissertation, MIT.
- Brittain, Julie. 2003. A Distributed Morphology account of the syntax of the Algonquian verb. In *Actes du congrès annuel de l'Association canadienne de linguistique 2003*, ed. by Sophie Burelle and Stanca Somefalean, 25–39.
- Bruening, Benjamin. 2001. Syntax at the Edge: Cross-Clausal Phenomena and the Syntax of Passamaquoddy. Doctoral dissertation, Massachusetts Institute of Technology, Cambridge, MA.
- Bruening, Benjamin. 2009. Algonquian Languages Have A-movement and A-Agreement. *Linguistic Inquiry* 40:427–445.
- Coon, Jessica, and Stefan Keine. 2021. Feature Gluttony. *Linguistic Inquiry* 52:655–710.
- Dahlstrom, Amy. 1991. *Plains Cree Morphosyntax*. New York: Garland Publishing.
- Deal, Amy Rose, and Justin Royer. 2025. Mayan animacy hierarchy effects and the dynamics of Agree. Online First at *Natural Language & Linguistic Theory*.
- Dryer, Matthew S. 1996. Passive vs. Indefinite Actor Construction in Plains Cree. In *Papers of the 27th Algonquian Conference*, ed. by David H. Pentland, 54–79. Winnipeg: University of Manitoba.
- Egerland, Verner. 2003. Impersonal Pronouns in Scandinavian and Romance. *Working Papers in Scandinavian Syntax* 71:75–102.
- Fenger, Paula. 2018. How impersonal does *one* get? A study of *man*-pronouns in Germanic. *The Journal of Comparative Germanic Linguistics* 21:291–325.
- Grishin, Peter. 2023a. Lessons from CP in Passamaquoddy and beyond. Doctoral dissertation, Massachusetts Institute of Technology, Cambridge, MA.
- Grishin, Peter. 2023b. Omnivorous third person agreement in Algonquian. *Glossa* 8:1–46.
- Grishin, Peter. 2024. Clause size, cross-clausal dependencies, and the left periphery. To appear in *Canadian Journal of Linguistics*.
- Grishin, Peter. 2025. Subordinative Long-Distance Agreement in Passamaquoddy-Wolastoqey and the Syntax of the Inverse. In *Papers of the Fifty-Fourth Algonquian Conference*, ed. by Inge Genee, Monica Macaulay, and Natalie Weber, 101–123. East Lansing: Michigan State University Press.
- Hammerly, Christopher. 2023. A set-based semantics for person, obviation, and animacy. *Language* 99:38–80.
- Harbour, Daniel. 2011. Valence and Atomic Number. *Linguistic Inquiry* 42:561–594.
- Harley, Heidi, and Elizabeth Ritter. 2002. Person and number in pronouns: a feature-geometric analysis. *Language* 78:482–526.
- Kouneli, Maria. 2021. Number-based noun classification: The view from Kipsigis. *Natural Language & Linguistic Theory* 39:1195–1251.
- LeSourd, Philip S. 1993. *Accent & Syllable Structure in Passamaquoddy*. New York and London: Routledge.
- Lochbihler, Bethany. 2012. Aspects of Argument Licensing. Doctoral dissertation, McGill University.
- Mathieu, Éric. 2007. The syntax of abstract and concrete finals in Ojibwe. In *Proceedings of NELS 37*, ed. by Emily Elfner and Martin Walkow, volume 2, 101–114. Amherst, MA: GLSA.

- Nevins, Andrew. 2007. The representation of third person and its consequences for person-case effects. *Natural Language & Linguistic Theory* 25:273–313.
- Noyer, Rolf. 1992. Features, positions and affixes in autonomous Morphological Structure. Doctoral dissertation, Massachusetts Institute of Technology, Cambridge, MA.
- Odribets, Zlata, and Will Oxford. 2023. Algonquian Languages Are Not Ergative. In *Papers of the 52nd Algonquian Conference*, ed. by Monica Macaulay and Margaret Noodin, 201–222. East Lansing: Michigan State University Press.
- Oxford, Will. 2014. Microparameters of Agreement: A Diachronic Perspective on Algonquian Verb Inflection. Doctoral dissertation, University of Toronto.
- Oxford, Will. 2017. The Activity Condition as a microparameter. *Linguistic Inquiry* 48:711–722.
- Oxford, Will. 2019a. Fission in Algonquian and the status of morphological templates. In *Proceedings of the Workshop on the Structure and Constituency of Languages of the Americas 23*, ed. by D. K. E. Reisinger and Roger Yu-Hsiang Lo, 77–91. Vancouver, BC: UBC Working Papers in Linguistics.
- Oxford, Will. 2019b. Inverse marking and Multiple Agree in Algonquin: Complementarity and variability. *Natural Language & Linguistic Theory* 37:955–996.
- Oxford, Will. 2023. A tale of two inverses. *Syntax* 26:311–354.
- Oxford, Will. 2024. Probe specification and agreement variation: Evidence from the Algonquian inverse. *Linguistic Inquiry* 55:489–535.
- Perlmutter, David M., and Paul M. Postal. 1977. Toward a universal characterization of passivization. In *Proceedings of the 3rd Annual Meeting of the Berkeley Linguistics Society*, ed. by Kenneth Whistler, Robert D. Van Valin, Chris Chiarello, Jeri J. Jaeger, Miriam Petruck, Henry Thompson, Ronya Javkin, and Anthony Woodbury, 394–417. Berkeley, CA: Berkeley Linguistics Society.
- Perlmutter, David M., and Paul M. Postal. 1984. The 1-advancement exclusiveness law. In *Studies in Relational Grammar 2*, ed. by David M. Perlmutter and Carol G. Rosen, 81–125. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.
- Preminger, Omer. 2014. *Agreement and its failures*. Number 68 in Linguistic Inquiry Monographs. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Rhodes, Richard A. 1976. The Morphosyntax of the Central Ojibwa Verb. Doctoral dissertation, University of Michigan.
- Silverstein, Michael. 1976. Hierarchy of features and ergativity. In *Grammatical Categories in Australian Languages*, ed. by Robert M. W. Dixon, number 22 in Linguistic Series, 112–171. Canberra: Australian Institute of Aboriginal Studies.
- Sun, Zhouyi, and Peter Grishin. 2025. Ordering postsyntactic operations within domains. Poster at WCCFL 43, University of Washington, Seattle, WA.
- Xu, Yadong. 2022. How Far Can a Probe Agree: Microvariation in Algonquian Peripheral Agreement. Doctoral dissertation, University of Manitoba.
- Štreikaitė, Milena. 2022. Impersonals, passives, and impersonal pronouns: Lessons from Lithuanian. *Syntax* 25:188–241.